

Prototyping a Weather Radar Foundation Model Using a Self-Supervised Learning Architecture

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ABSTRACT

8 In meteorology, machine learning is emerging as a leading solution to many important problems.
9 However, many commonly used methods rely on supervised learning, which requires large labeled
10 datasets that are often created through time-intensive manual annotation. The limited availability
11 of these datasets represents a substantial barrier to the development of broadly applicable machine-
12 learning tools for the weather enterprise. In this study, we investigate image-based self-supervised
13 learning as an avenue for pretraining a general-purpose model using polarimetric observations from
14 the KHTX S-band Next Generation Weather Radar (NEXRAD) site. The proposed framework
15 adapts Meta AI’s self-distillation with no labels (DINO) architecture for multichannel meteorological
16 imagery through the implementation of a custom channel-wise tokenizer. This tokenizer
17 independently encodes information from each polarimetric radar variable before integrating the
18 resulting representations within a shared vision-transformer framework, allowing the model to
19 preserve both variable-specific information and spatial relationships among radar features. Rather
20 than learning from predefined meteorological labels, the model is trained to produce meaningful
21 feature embeddings directly from the spatial, textural, and cross-variable characteristics of radar
22 observations. These learned representations provide a potential foundation for downstream models
23 that could be adapted to specific meteorological applications using substantially smaller labeled
24 datasets. This framework may reduce dependence on extensive manual labeling while improving
25 the transferability of learned representations across weather phenomena, radar sites, and downstream
26 tasks. More broadly, this work evaluates the potential of DINO-based self-supervised
27 pretraining to support scalable foundation-model development for polarimetric radar analysis and
28 operational meteorological applications.

29 **1. Introduction**

30 Weather radar provides detailed observations of precipitation structure and storm evolution,
31 while polarimetric variables offer additional information about hydrometeor characteristics and
32 storm organization. These observations support applications such as precipitation estimation,
33 storm classification, and severe-weather detection. However, many radar-based machine-learning
34 methods rely on supervised learning and therefore require large, manually labeled datasets. Creating
35 these labels is time-intensive, often requires expert meteorological knowledge, and limits the range
36 of phenomena available for model development.

37 Self-supervised learning provides an alternative by allowing models to learn useful represen-
38 tations directly from unlabeled data. The DINO framework trains student and teacher vision
39 transformers to produce similar representations from differently augmented views of the same
40 image (Caron et al. 2021). Previous work has shown that this approach can extract meaningful
41 atmospheric features from unlabeled cloud-camera imagery (Dematties et al. 2023), suggesting
42 that similar methods may be useful for weather-radar observations.

43 Applying DINO to polarimetric radar data requires accounting for variables with different physi-
44 cal meanings, numerical ranges, and missing-data characteristics. This study develops a prototype
45 radar foundation model using reflectivity, specific differential phase, differential reflectivity, cross-
46 correlation ratio, and spectrum width from the KHTX NEXRAD site. A channel-aware tokenizer
47 processes each radar field independently before combining the resulting representations within a
48 shared vision transformer. The learned embeddings are evaluated using clustering, self-organizing
49 maps, and attention-map visualization. The primary objective is to determine whether the model
50 can identify meaningful storm structures without receiving storm-type or hazard labels during
51 training.

52 2. Methods

53 This study explores a self-supervised learning workflow designed to characterize scenes of
54 polarimetric weather-radar data without using manually assigned meteorological labels in the
55 pretraining objective. The workflow begins with data acquisition and standardization of radar
56 observations, followed by physical preprocessing, model training, feature extraction, clustering,
57 and visual interpretation.

58 *Data Acquisition and Processing*

59 To support collaboration with the ARM Bankhead National Forest observatory, KHTX radar
60 observations providing regional coverage of northern Alabama were selected for training. These
61 data were sourced from the KHTX S-band radar near Huntsville, Alabama. Using the Adapt
62 processing pipeline, raw NEXRAD Level-II volume scans were retrieved from the AWS-hosted
63 NEXRAD archive. To maximize the amount of meteorologically meaningful information in the
64 training dataset, events within a 3-hour window of a National Weather Service storm report were
65 selected.

66 The storm-report categories considered were blizzard, flood, flash flood, funnel cloud, hail, heavy
67 rain, heavy snow, lightning, sleet, tornado, thunderstorm wind, winter storm, and tropical storm.
68 These categories were selected to increase the likelihood that convective or stratiform precipitation
69 structures appeared in the radar scans. Most of the resulting storm reports were associated with
70 thunderstorm wind, followed by tornado reports.

71 After the files were downloaded, only samples with more than 10% coverage of reflectivity ex-
72 ceeding 10 dBZ were retained. The radar volumes were processed into NetCDF files and regridded
73 from the native radial coordinates to a Cartesian spatial grid. Additionally, the CSU_RadarTools

74 package was used to estimate specific differential phase from the differential-phase observations in
75 each radar scan.

76 MODEL CONFIGURATION

77 During training, the data loader selects the first available time index and extracts a horizontal
78 radar slice nearest 2 km altitude. This height was selected to emphasize storm-scale horizontal
79 structures while reducing the influence of near-surface clutter and strong height-dependent sampling
80 differences.

81 The final field-token configuration used reflectivity, specific differential phase, differential reflec-
82 tivity, cross-correlation ratio, and spectrum width. Each field was clipped to physically motivated
83 limits before normalization to the interval $[0, 1]$. The clipping ranges were 10–75 dBZ for reflec-
84 tivity, -5 to 10 deg km^{-1} for specific differential phase, -8 to 12 dB for differential reflectivity,
85 0.2 – 1.05 for cross-correlation ratio, and 0 – 20 m s^{-1} for spectrum width.

86 Values outside these ranges were clipped, and missing values were represented using a sentinel
87 value of -1.0 . Where reflectivity was missing or below the retained 10-dBZ threshold, all radar
88 fields were assigned the missing-data sentinel. This approach retained the spatial footprint of radar
89 coverage while distinguishing missing or excluded regions from valid normalized observations.

90 The model was based on the DINO self-distillation framework developed by Caron et al. (2021).
91 The repository was adapted from the cloud-photography application developed by Dematties et al.
92 (2023), but was modified to accept polarimetric radar variables rather than the red, green, and blue
93 channels of a conventional image.

94 The primary architectural modification was a channel-aware tokenizer similar to the Channel
95 Vision Transformer developed by Bao et al. (2024). Rather than mixing all radar variables at
96 the image input, the model tokenized each field independently using a shared patch projection.

97 A learned “field” embedding was added to each token, allowing the model to preserve both the
98 physical identity of the radar variable and the spatial location of each patch.

99 In the final model configuration, the 1-km gridded radar data were represented using 300 km
100 $\times$ 300 km global views and 100 km $\times$ 100 km local views. Each view was divided into patches
101 measuring 10 km $\times$ 10 km. The global views contained spatial information from all five radar vari-
102 ables represented by field-specific tokens. This design allowed the model to learn patterns within
103 the radar structures without disregarding the physical distinctions among reflectivity, differential
104 phase, and the other polarimetric variables.

105 The radar data were augmented to prevent the model from simply memorizing individual scans
106 and instead encourage it to learn the underlying structures of radar scenes. For each input scan,
107 two global crops and four local crops were generated. The teacher network received only the two
108 global crops, whereas the student network received all six views. Each view had a 50% probability
109 of being flipped horizontally or vertically. The second global crop and all local crops also had a
110 50% probability of receiving Gaussian noise.

111 Finally, one randomly selected radar field was completely masked in every student input, encour-
112 aging the model to use relationships among the remaining radar fields. The student network was
113 trained to match the teacher’s feature embeddings across different views of the same radar scene.
114 The teacher’s weights were initialized from the student network and subsequently updated using
115 an exponential moving average of the student’s parameters.

116 Using PyTorch, training was performed in parallel across several GPUs. Checkpoints stored
117 the student and teacher model states and the additional training information needed to resume an
118 interrupted run. Standard inference produced a feature vector for each radar scan along with an
119 attention-map visualization. Associative inference was not used to produce attention maps, but it
120 retained the matching filename and source path to support future analysis.

121 *Post-processing*

122 The extracted features were analyzed to determine whether the learned embeddings repre-
123 sented meaningful meteorological structures. Several dimensionality-reduction and unsupervised-
124 clustering approaches were tested, including principal component analysis (PCA) followed by
125 HDBSCAN clustering. UMAP and t-SNE projections combined with DBSCAN clustering were
126 also evaluated. A 2×2 self-organizing map (SOM), selected based on a local minimum in
127 topographic error, became the primary focus of the analysis. Visual examination of the SOM
128 nodes suggested that the learned embeddings separated radar scenes according to aspects of storm
129 organization.

130 **3. Results**

131 *SOM Clustering*

132 After clustering the raw feature vectors using a self-organizing map, several recurring patterns
133 were identified within the resulting nodes. Figure 2 shows a representative case for each node. Each
134 SOM node is represented by a learned prototype, or codebook, vector in the feature-embedding
135 space. For each node, the cosine distance between its prototype vector and each assigned sample
136 was calculated, and the sample with the smallest distance was selected as the representative case.

137 Nodes 00, 01, and 11 primarily show cellular structures, with nodes 00 and 01 having slightly
138 more stratiform components than node 11. Node 11 shows an almost purely cellular storm mode,
139 while node 10 shows a primarily stratiform or organized regime.

140 Using the labeling tool in scikit-image, 30-dBZ objects greater than 10 km^2 in area were identified
141 as a simple proxy for discrete moderate-to-high-reflectivity features. As shown in Fig. 3, node 10
142 contains the fewest identified reflectivity objects, while node 11 contains the most.

143 The fractional coverage of the largest object was also analyzed to determine whether each radar
144 scene was dominated by a single object. As shown in Fig. 4, node 10 primarily contains scenes
145 dominated by one large object, whereas the other nodes show more fragmented or cellular storm
146 structures.

147 *Attention Maps*

148 Transformer attention maps visualize how strongly tokens are weighted relative to one another
149 within a selected layer and attention head. These maps can help identify spatial patterns associated
150 with the model’s internal representations, although they should not be interpreted as direct measures
151 of causal feature importance.

152 In the cloud-image application of Dematties et al. (2023), individual attention heads produced
153 recognizable feature masks, with different heads focusing on clouds, the Sun, the fisheye lens,
154 and other image components. Similar attention plots were produced for the radar model, although
155 comparably distinct physical interpretations were not identified. Overall, attention head 1 consis-
156 tently assigned greater attention to convective regions, while the remaining attention heads were
157 less consistent.

158 **4. Discussion**

159 Although this prototype was limited in scope by the 10-week duration of the project, it was
160 successful as a feasibility study for a weather-radar foundation model. We reproduced much of the
161 cloud-image workflow developed by Dematties et al. (2023), but used a dataset composed of radar
162 NetCDF files rather than cloud-camera images.

163 The primary limitations of the project were twofold. First, the model was trained on only
164 approximately 8,500 radar scenes because the data-download and regridding pipeline was time-

165 consuming. Foundation models are generally trained on substantially larger and more diverse
166 datasets. Second, the 10-km patch size may have caused the model to miss meaningful structures
167 within convective systems. Smaller patches were not used because their substantially greater
168 memory requirements exceeded the available GPU capacity.

169 There was also insufficient time to evaluate the model through downstream tasks. Nevertheless,
170 the organization of the SOM nodes suggests that the embeddings contain information related to
171 radar-observed storm morphology.

172 Several attention heads assigned substantial weight to missing-data regions. This behavior may
173 be related to the spatially consistent sentinel value, although an ablation experiment would be
174 required to establish the cause.

175 **5. Conclusion**

176 The primary conclusion of this project is that DINO could provide the basis for a weather-radar
177 foundation model. However, significant work remains before this goal can be achieved. Smaller
178 patches, potentially less than 5 km, may allow the model to represent finer-scale convective
179 structures, although this hypothesis requires direct testing. Training on a much larger and more
180 diverse dataset may also improve representation quality and generalization.

181 Alternative treatments of missing data should be tested to determine whether they produce
182 more physically meaningful attention patterns. Future work should also evaluate the pretrained
183 embeddings through downstream classification, segmentation, or retrieval tasks and test whether
184 the learned representations transfer across radar sites and meteorological regimes.

185 If these developments are successful, this project could provide significant value to the broader
186 meteorological community. Publicly releasing the pretrained model weights could help democra-

187 tize radar-based machine-learning research by providing a reusable foundation for lighter-weight,
188 targeted downstream tasks.

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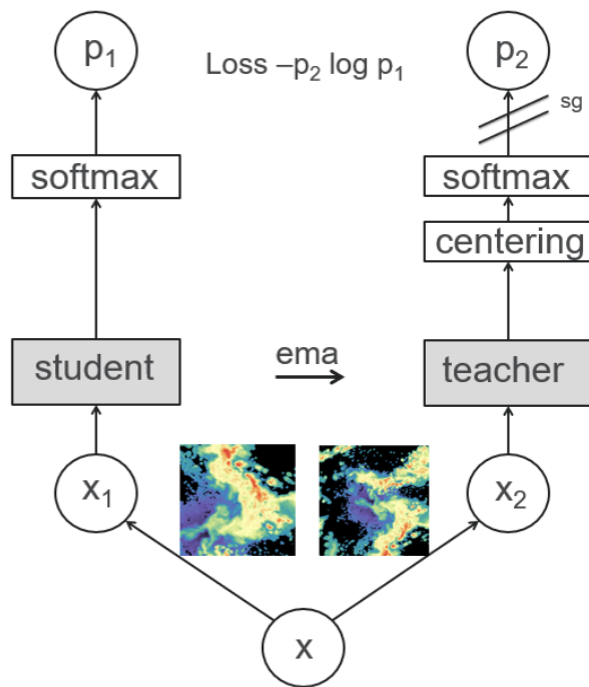


FIG. 1. Experimental model configuration.

Representative Feature Vector Case per SOM Node

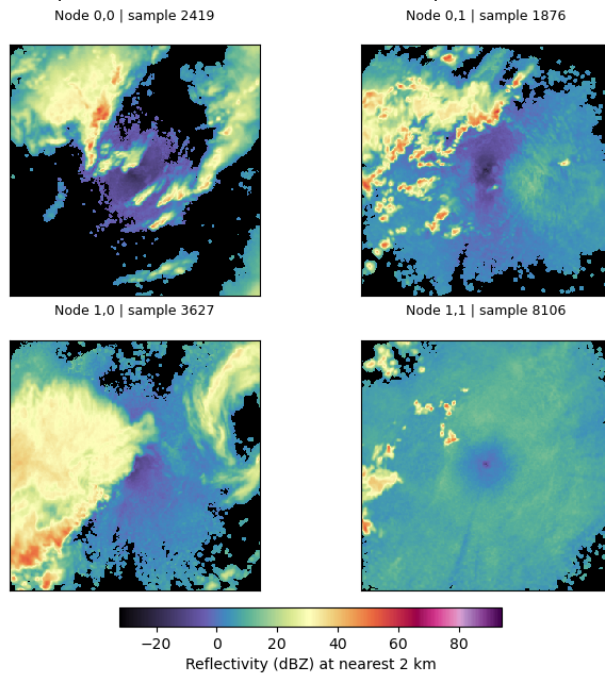


FIG. 2. Representative cases from the 2×2 SOM.

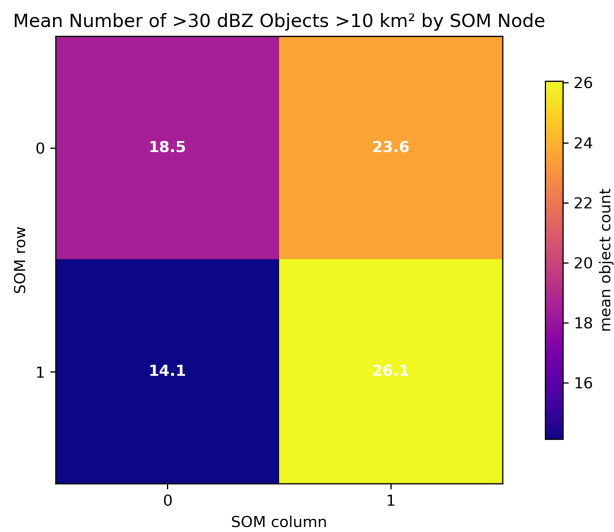


FIG. 3. Mean number of reflectivity objects exceeding 30 dBZ and 10 km² within each SOM node.

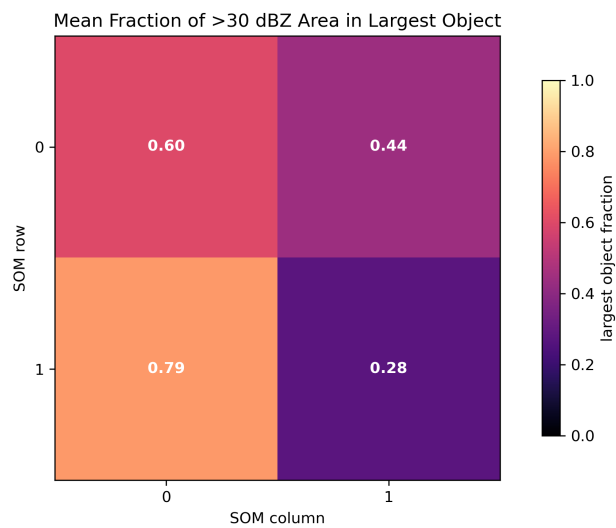


FIG. 4. Fraction of each radar scene occupied by its largest reflectivity object within each SOM node.

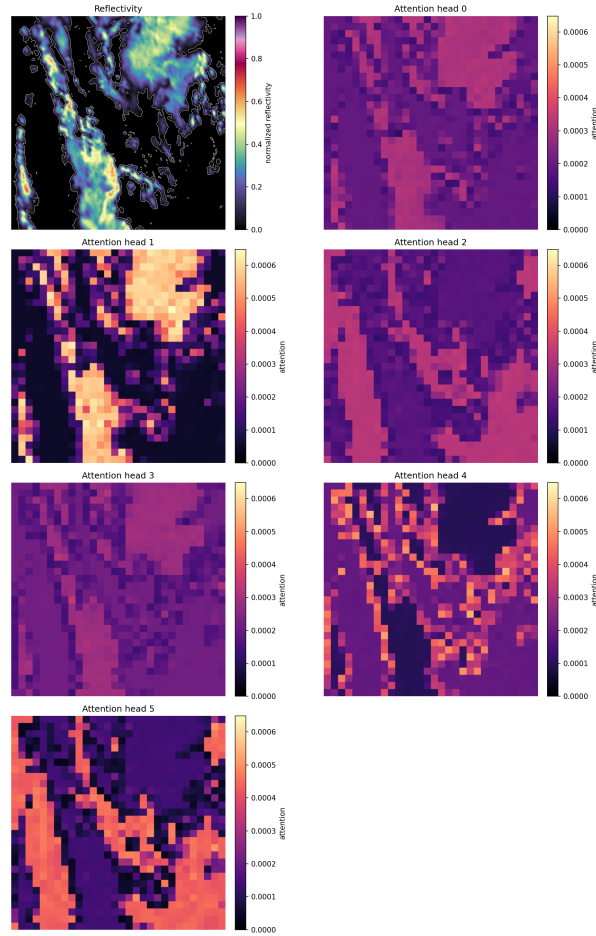


FIG. 5. Attention heads produced for an example radar sample.